

Environment & Society — Week 03 Notes

Quiz flags at a glance

- ★ Quiz flag: **Development** is a *process* that brings about changes in economic prosperity and quality of life — an improvement in material conditions of life — traditionally measured by economic criteria but increasingly measured more holistically (health, education, etc.) [L5 S5][T p.174]
- ★ Quiz flag: The world is *not* a simple binary of haves and have-nots. On the Level 1–4 income scale (\$2/\$8/\$32-per-day breakpoints), most of the world’s ~8 billion people fall in Levels 2–3, in between the extremes. This point is made twice, once per lecture, using two different visualizations (the Level 1–4 figure; the GapMinder \$1/\$10/\$100-a-day video) [L5 S4, S7][L6 S3, S10]
- ★ Quiz flag: **Colonialism** = the forceful appropriation of foreign territory, usually established and maintained through military and political structures; creates unequal cultural and economic relations; usually involves the displacement of indigenous populations [L5 S9][T p.184]
- ★ Quiz flag: Three theories explain uneven development, all emerging out of the 1960s decolonization movement: **Modernization Theory** (Rostow), **Dependency Theory**, and **World Systems Theory** (Wallerstein) [L5 S11][T p.185]
- ★ Quiz flag: Rostow’s five stages of modernization: (1) Traditional society, (2) Preconditions for take-off, (3) Take-off, (4) Drive to maturity, (5) High mass consumption [L5 S13][T p.180, Box 5.2]
- ★ Quiz flag: **World Systems Theory** divides the world into **core** (more developed), **semi-periphery** (less developed), and **periphery** (least developed) countries, linked by economic and political competition [L5 S16][T p.185]
- ★ Quiz flag: **GDP** vs. **GNI** — GDP is the market value of goods/services produced *within* a country; GNI adds income from that country’s investments *abroad*. Both are divided by population for a per-capita proxy of average income [L6 S4][T p.178]
- ★ Quiz flag: Three problems with GNI per capita as a development measure: (1) it misses the informal economy (as much as ~80% of activity in some less-developed countries), (2) it hides inequality within a country, (3) it ignores differences in cost of living [L6 S6]
- ★ Quiz flag: **Purchasing Power Parity (PPP)** adjusts income by what it can actually buy locally, using a common “market basket” of goods. PPP *compresses* — but does not erase — the gap between richer and poorer countries [L6 S6–S9][T p.179]
- ★ Quiz flag: **Human Development Index (HDI)** combines income (GNI per capita), health (life expectancy), and education (years of schooling) into one composite 0–1 score. 2019/2020 data: Norway highest (0.957), Niger lowest (0.394) [L6 S13–14][T p.181, 183, Table 5.1]

Part 1: Lecture 5 — Introduction to Development: A Divided World

Development studies: framing the question

This is the first of four lectures (5–8) on **uneven development**, all built around Chapter 5 (pp.172–186 for lectures 5–6; pp.186–208 for lectures 7–8 next week) [L5]. The professor frames the whole unit using Charles Gritzner’s human-geography question set: *what is where, why there, why care* [L5]. Today answers “what is where” — describing how development is distributed across the globe — before later asking “why there” (theories of uneven development) and eventually “why care” (consequences, covered next week).

Development studies asks four linked questions: what does development mean, what makes a place more/less developed, how do we measure development, and how do we make sense of the resulting patterns [L5 S3][T p.174 sidebar: this maps onto the book’s broader “what is where, why there, why care” framework].

What is development? Definitions and the “haves and have-nots”

The world shows striking **spatial variations in material well-being** — some places have abundant food, housing, healthcare, and jobs; others have very little. This is often summarized as “the haves and the have-nots” [L5 S4]. These variations exist at multiple **spatial scales** simultaneously: global (Canada vs. Haiti), national/regional (Canada’s “have” provinces like Ontario/Quebec/Alberta subsidizing “have-not” provinces, e.g. the Atlantic provinces, through federal redistribution), and even neighborhood-level within a single city [L5 S4].

★ Quiz flag: **MOST people live in between the extremes.** Using a 4-level scale of income (Level 1 <\$2/day, Level 2 \$2–8/day, Level 3 \$8–32/day, Level 4 >\$32/day), only about 1 billion people are at Level 1 (poorest) and 1 billion at Level 4 (richest); the remaining ~5–6 billion (out of ~8 billion total) fall in Levels 2–3, in between [L5 S4, S7].

Key definitions (boxed/italicized in the textbook and read verbatim from the slides):

- **Development:** *a process that brings about changes in economic prosperity and quality of life; an improvement in the material conditions of life; measured traditionally by economic criteria, but increasingly in more holistic ways including health, education, etc.* [L5 S5][T p.174]
- **More developed world:** a group of countries — including Canada, the United States, most of Europe, Australia, New Zealand, and Japan — characterized by a high standard of living and social well-being [L5 S5][T p.174]
- **Less developed world:** a large group of countries characterized by low standards of living and social well-being [L5 S5][T p.174]

Development is typically measured in economic terms (income/wealth, e.g. GDP or GNI — detailed in Lecture 6), but the professor stresses this is incomplete: broader/holistic measures (quality of life, equality, well-being) matter too [L5 S5–S6]. The textbook adds that development has tradi-

tionally been measured “by reference to the absolute size and power of a country’s economy” [T p.175], reinforcing this same point.

Differentiating levels of development: is it really a binary?

The class raises the question: is the world really divided in a simple binary way (more developed vs. less developed), or are there important in-between categories? [L5 S7] Older/common terminology treats it as a binary — *First World* vs. *Third World*, *Global North* vs. *Global South*, *developed* vs. *underdeveloped* — but these terms are all “somewhat problematic” because they imply a sharp two-way split that doesn’t match reality (recall: most people are in between) [L5 S7–S8]. A visual quirk of the “Global North/South” line: Australia and New Zealand fall geographically in the southern hemisphere but are grouped with the “North” (more developed) side, since the terminology tracks development level, not literal hemisphere [L5 S8].

A more nuanced three-way split appears on the maps: **more developed world**, **less developed world**, and **least developed world** [L5 S8][T p.175, Figure 5.1]. Per the textbook (source of record for the underlying figures), there are **46 least developed countries** as of 2020, concentrated in Africa (33 countries), Asia & the Pacific (12 countries), and the Caribbean (1: Haiti) [T p.175, Figure 5.1]. This list is reviewed and updated every three years by the UN, with countries able to “graduate” out of it (e.g. Botswana in 1994, Cape Verde in 2007, the Maldives in 2011) [T p.175].

Characteristics of the least-developed world relative to the most-developed include higher poverty rates, higher mortality/fertility rates (topic of the course’s next major unit), and lower literacy and industrialization [L5 S9]. The professor notes Canada narrowly edges out the US in life expectancy (just above vs. just below 80 years) — described as “mostly a statistical anomaly” rather than a meaningful development gap between the two [L5 S9].

★ Quiz flag: **Colonialism**: *the forceful appropriation of foreign territory; usually established and maintained through military and political structures; creates unequal cultural and economic relations; usually involves the displacement of indigenous populations* [L5 S9][T p.184]. Much of the less-developed world consists of former colonies [L5 S9]. The textbook adds a related, distinct term worth knowing: **civilization** — *a culture with agriculture and cities, food and labour surpluses, social stratification, and state organization* [T p.184] — used in Jared Diamond’s argument (textbook-only content, not raised in lecture) that Eurasia’s east–west geographic axis let agricultural technology diffuse faster than in the Americas/Africa’s north–south axis, helping explain why European civilizations industrialized and colonized earlier than others [T p.184]. ⚠ This geography-based argument (and the related concepts of **environmental determinism** — *the view that culture and behaviour are directly shaped by physical environment* — vs. **possibilism** — *the view that environment offers a range of possibilities from which humans choose* [T p.183]) appears in the textbook’s opening of §5.2 as one way of explaining global inequality, but the professor did not cover it in either lecture. Included here for completeness since it’s part of the assigned reading; see Gaps & conflicts.

Visualizing development: Hans Rosling

The lecture shows a short Hans Rosling (1948–2017) BBC video plotting wealth (income per person, \$400–\$40,000) against health (life expectancy, 25–75 years) for ~200 countries over ~200 years (1810–present), animated as country-sized bubbles by region [L5 S10]. Key narrative beats from the video: in 1810 all countries clustered as poor and sick; the Industrial Revolution pulled Europe upward while colonized Asia/Africa stayed behind; by 1948 gaps were “wider than ever”; from the 1970s on, former colonies in Asia and Latin America began catching up (“emerging economies”), while some African countries were held back by civil war or HIV [L5 S10]. A key illustrative point: China’s own internal diversity is as large as global diversity — splitting China by province shows Shanghai matching Italy’s wealth/health, inland Guizhou matching Pakistan, and rural Guizhou matching Ghana [L5 S10]. Rosling’s takeaway, echoed by the professor: despite real and large inequality, “most people are somewhere in the middle,” and the historical gap between “the West and the rest” has been closing [L5 S10].

Theories of development

Following 1960s decolonization, a key question emerged: how would newly independent (mostly poor) nations achieve *economic* independence, having already achieved *political* independence? Three prominent theories responded to this question [L5 S11][T p.185].

1. Modernization Theory (Walter Rostow, economist) — see also **Box 5.2** in the textbook [T p.180]. Rostow asked how newly independent African/Asian countries could survive economically, and proposed that they should follow the same developmental path already taken by the wealthy countries of his era [L5 S12]. Central to this is **industrialization**: *a process of economic and social change that transforms a society from largely agricultural to largely industrial; involves reorganizing the economy toward manufacturing and society toward being urban; typically associated with an industrial revolution; often regarded as a key step in increasing a country’s level of development* [L5 S12][T p.180].

★ Quiz flag: Rostow’s five stages [L5 S13][T p.180, Box 5.2]:

1. **Traditional society** — subsistence agriculture, domestic industry, hierarchical social structure [T p.180]
2. **Preconditions for take-off** — localized resource development, often via colonialism or a transnational corporation; export-based economy; sometimes a “dual economy” where different regions of the same country sit at different development levels (textbook example: the Canadian Shield vs. the Canadian North today) [T p.180]
3. **Take-off (to sustained growth)** — exploitation of major resources, possibly rapid political change; newly industrialized countries may sit here [T p.180]
4. **Drive to maturity** — a diverse industrial base and expanded trade develop [T p.180]
5. **High mass consumption / age of high mass consumption** — an advanced, service/finance/education/tech-oriented economy, typical of the more developed world [L5 S13][T p.180]

△ Criticisms (raised in lecture, expanded in textbook): the theory is fairly Eurocentric and focused on wealthy countries' own experience of resource exploitation [L5 S13]. The textbook formally defines **Eurocentrism**: *a view that places the historical experience of Europe (and its descendants) as the benchmark for all comparisons; a form of ethnocentrism* [T p.178], and **developmentalism**: *an analysis of cultural and economic change that treats each country/region of the world as autonomous and proceeding through the same series of developmental stages* [T p.180] — the textbook explicitly calls Rostow's model an example of developmentalism, and cautions that “simplifications in the Rostow model may be risky: what happened in Europe and North America may not happen elsewhere” [T p.180]. It also notes economic growth and human development (“the demographic transition”) are not necessarily the same thing, foreshadowing the HDI discussion in Lecture 6 [T p.180]. Related textbook term (not raised in lecture): **ethnocentrism** — *a form of prejudice presuming one's own culture is normal/natural and others are inferior* [T p.178].

2. Dependency Theory examines the historical and contemporary relationship between the more and less developed worlds, rooted in the colonial period (roughly 1500–1950s, when independence movements began) [L5 S14][T p.185, map of colonial territory]. Key definitions: **dependence** — *in political contexts, a relationship in which one state (or people) is dependent on, and therefore dominated by, another state* — and **dependency theory** — *a theory that connects disparities in levels of development to the relationship between dependent and dominant states* [L5 S15][T p.185]. Worked example: colonial India was required to sell its cotton exclusively to Britain, feeding British textile mills and fueling Britain's industrial revolution, while India itself was blocked from selling to anyone else [L5 S14 — off-slide elaboration in transcript]. △ Named critique (unresolved, raised informally by the professor): the theory doesn't explain why the US and Canada — also former British colonies — became wealthy rather than staying dependent; the professor floats, without resolving, that racial dynamics might be part of the explanation [L5 S15 — off-slide].

3. World Systems Theory (Immanuel Wallerstein, sociologist): *a set of ideas centred on the notion that the world is an interdependent system of countries linked together by an economic and political competition that shapes relations between core (more developed), semi-periphery (less developed), and peripheral (least developed) countries* [L5 S16][T p.185]. Core countries (Europe, North America, Japan, Australia, etc.) historically **exploited** their colonies (periphery/semi-periphery) for labour and natural resources, growing economically powerful while the colonies became dependent [L5 S18][T p.185–186]. Though formal colonialism has largely ended, its effects persist as ongoing inequality; the professor connects this to *contemporary globalization*, sometimes called **neo-colonialism**: core countries continue to depend on peripheral/semi-peripheral places for cheap labour (e.g. sweatshop manufacturing of shoes/electronics, agricultural labour, tourism/service work) and cheap natural resources, while peripheral/semi-peripheral places depend on core countries for employment, financial aid, and military protection [L5 S18]. The textbook adds a useful nuance question the theory struggles with: how easily/quickly can a country move between zones (e.g. China shifting from periphery toward semi-periphery or beyond)? [T p.186] It also stresses the *directionality* dependency theory implies: economic value flows periphery → core, meaning peripheral countries must stay underdeveloped for core countries to develop

— “some states must remain underdeveloped for others to become developed” [T p.186].

Rhetorical questions posed at the end of the lecture (worth sitting with, not answered directly): does calling a place “more developed” imply a value judgment that it’s *better*? Are people in more-developed countries necessarily happier, or do they necessarily have a better relationship with the environment or with indigenous populations? [L5 S19]

Part 2: Lecture 6 — Development & Inequality: Measuring Economic & Social Development

Recap

Lecture 6 opens by restating Lecture 5’s core points: striking spatial variations in well-being exist at global, regional/national, and local scales; most people fall between the “haves” and “have-nots” extremes; development is thought of as a continuum [L6 S3]. Same assigned reading as Lecture 5 (Ch.5, pp.172–186, §5.1–5.2) [L6 S1].

Measuring development: economic tools (GDP & GNI)

Ideally, development would be measured by *average per-capita income*, but actual individual income data is very hard to obtain for most countries (no access to everyone’s tax returns) [L6 S4]. Instead, two **proxy measures** are used:

- ★ Quiz flag: **GDP (Gross Domestic Product)**: *a monetary measure of the market value of all goods and services produced within a country over a given period* (usually a year) [L6 S4][T p.178]
- ★ Quiz flag: **GNI (Gross National Income)**: *a monetary measure of the market value of goods and services produced within a country, plus income from investments abroad, over a given period* [L6 S4][T p.178]

Both are divided by population to get a **per-capita** figure — a proxy for average income [L6 S4]. The textbook adds a closely related third term not distinguished in lecture: **GNP (Gross National Product)** — *effectively the same idea as GDP/GNI for our purposes, though it slightly differs in what it captures* [T p.178].

At the global scale, GNI per capita is commonly used to classify countries by income level (map: low / lower-middle / high-middle / high income) [L6 S5][T p.179, Figure 5.2]. Global wealth concentrates in **core** countries (Wallerstein’s terminology from Lecture 5); global poverty concentrates in **peripheral** countries [L6 S5]. The World Bank’s *World Development Report* uses this same four-category system [T p.178–179].

★ Quiz flag: Three problems with GNI per capita as a measure of development [L6 S6]:

1. **Formal vs. informal economy** — GNI only captures the *formal* economy (tracked, taxed

transactions like a paycheque with a social insurance number). The **informal economy** (e.g. paying a friend cash to build a deck, or paying someone cash to clean the house) goes untracked. In many less-developed countries, informal activity can be as high as ~80% of the economy, meaning GNI *underrepresents* their true economic activity — this is a much smaller share of Canada’s economy by comparison [L6 S6].

2. **Variations within a country** — GNI per capita is an average and hides internal inequality (e.g. billionaires like Elon Musk, Warren Buffett, Bill Gates, or Jeff Bezos vs. homeless individuals within the same country) [L6 S6].
3. **Differences in cost of living** — a raw income figure doesn’t account for how far that income actually goes locally [L6 S6].

Purchasing Power Parity (PPP)

★ Quiz flag: **Purchasing Power Parity (PPP)**: *a tool that measures the relative cost of a common market basket of goods and services for comparing cost of living between countries; useful in conjunction with aggregate macroeconomic measures like GDP/GNI per capita* [L6 S6][T p.179]. The “market basket” (Figure 5.3 in the textbook) includes categories like transportation, housing, apparel, food & beverages, medical care, education/communication, and recreation [T p.181, Figure 5.3]. Per the textbook, average GNI per capita by income category is: low-income ≈ US\$821, lower-middle ≈ US\$2,360, upper-middle ≈ US\$8,150, high-income ≈ US\$46,052 [T p.181].

Worked example from the slides (Ecuador vs. Canada) [L6 S7]:

Country	Avg. income	Cost of milk	Milk purchasable
Ecuador	\$4,510	\$1.02	4,421 L
Canada	\$41,950	\$2.25	18,644 L

By raw income, Canada looks about **10×** richer than Ecuador ($\$41,950 \div \$4,510 \approx 9.3$, “about 10 times” per the lecture). But by what that income can actually buy, Canada is only about **4×** richer ($18,644 \text{ L} \div 4,421 \text{ L} \approx 4.2$) [L6 S7]. ★ Quiz flag: this is the core lesson of PPP — it **compresses** the apparent gap between rich and poor countries (lowering the relative GNI of wealthy countries, raising it for poorer ones) without eliminating the underlying inequality or the core–periphery pattern [L6 S8].

Textbook example confirming the same compression effect with real 2017 figures: Canada’s raw GDP per capita (US\$45,032) vs. PPP-adjusted (US\$46,378) — only marginally different; but Ecuador’s raw GDP per capita (US\$6,198) nearly doubles to a PPP-equivalent of US\$11,617, and Burundi’s raw GDP per capita (US\$320) becomes US\$771 PPP-adjusted (more than 2.4×) [T p.179]. The textbook’s conclusion matches the lecture precisely: “this does not mean that the fundamental economic development differences between the more developed and less developed worlds are invalid. In fact, it confirms that these differences do indeed exist” [T p.179].

Applying PPP to the GNI-per-capita map changes some countries’ apparent category — e.g. Ar-

gentina and Chile move up into higher income categories relative to the raw-GNI map — though sub-Saharan Africa’s least-developed countries remain in the lowest category either way [L6 S9]. Box 5.1 in the textbook (“**Three Less Developed World Case Studies: Ethiopia, Sri Lanka, and Haiti**”) is referenced here as an illustration of what continued uneven prosperity looks like on the ground [L6 S8][T p.176–177, Box 5.1]. ⚠ Note: the slide bullet immediately above this reference says “recall core-periphery relationship (see Box 5.1),” which could suggest Box 5.1 is *about* core-periphery theory — but the actual box (confirmed in the textbook) profiles these three specific countries’ development challenges (poverty, colonial history, political instability, natural hazards), not core-periphery theory directly. The photos underneath the slide bullet (captioned Addis Ababa, Colombo, Port-au-Prince) match the box’s real content, so the box is best understood as concrete case-study evidence for uneven prosperity, loosely tied back to the core-periphery framework rather than an explanation of it. See Gaps & conflicts.

Another named tool for comparing purchasing power: **The Big Mac Index** (*The Economist* magazine) — compares how much of a person’s income it takes to buy a Big Mac in different countries, as a simplified/humorous version of the PPP market-basket idea [L6 S9 — named only in the transcript; the slide shows an image of an oversized burger without naming it].

Alternative lenses on income inequality: GapMinder & Dollar Street

A short **GapMinder** video (“How Many Are Rich & How Many Are Poor?”) visualizes the world’s population in blocks of 10 million people arranged by daily income (<\$1/day, ~\$10/day, >\$100/day), reinforcing that most people sit in between the extremes rather than at either pole [L6 S10].

Dollar Street (a project connected to Hans Rosling) imagines a hypothetical street spanning the globe, where a household’s position is determined by its monthly income; poorer households are on the left, richer on the right [L6 S10]. Example used in lecture — brushing teeth by monthly household income: finger-brushing with no toothbrush in Myanmar (\$47/mo) → one shared family toothbrush in Cameroon (\$174/mo) → individual toothbrushes in Palestine (\$624/mo) → multiple/electric toothbrushes, possibly one per bathroom, in France (\$3,764/mo) [L6 S10].

Measuring development: social tools

Economic measures are typically used because they’re assumed to be reliable **surrogate** (proxy) measures of **social development**: *the degree to which a society has invested its wealth into things like education, health, housing, etc.* [L6 S11]. But the professor argues social development is arguably what actually matters to people day-to-day — health, education, freedom from fear — more than raw income [L6 S11].

Is there a relationship between economic and social development? Generally yes — higher-income societies *can* invest more in health, education, housing, food security [L6 S11]. But the relationship isn’t automatic: high wealth doesn’t guarantee equitable investment in social development if that wealth is concentrated and undertaxed (the professor again references extreme US wealth concentration and reluctance to be taxed for social programs) [L6 S11]. Measures of social devel-

opment (e.g. literacy rates, hospital beds per 1,000 people) independently show the same kind of more-developed/less-developed disparities as economic measures [L6 S12].

Combining economic & social measures: the Human Development Index (HDI)

★ Quiz flag: **Human Development Index (HDI)**: *a numerical measure of how well basic human needs are being met; a composite index incorporating health (life expectancy), education (years of schooling), and income (GNI per capita)* [L6 S13][T p.180 sidebar, p.183]. Scores theoretically range from 0 (no development) to 1 (full development), though no country has hit either extreme [L6 S14]. “A general association exists between HDI and GNI per capita” [L6 S13], but the textbook is explicit that this is *not* a strict link: “although a general relationship between economic prosperity and human development is evident, there is no direct link — some countries are more successful than others in translating economic success into better lives for their people” [T p.181].

★ Quiz flag: 2019/2020 data (matches exactly between slides and textbook Table 5.1) — top of the list: **Norway**, rank 1, HDI **0.957** (only a 4.3% shortfall from the theoretical maximum of 1.000); bottom of the list: **Niger**, rank 189, HDI **0.394** (a 60.6% shortfall) [L6 S14][T p.181, 183, Table 5.1]. (This corrects a transcript auto-caption error — see manifest — where Norway’s value was mis-transcribed as “0.97957” and Niger’s name was garbled to “***”; both are confirmed by the textbook’s own Table 5.1.) Globally, the UNDP divides countries into four HDI bands — very high (66 countries), high (53), medium (37), low (33) — with six countries (notably North Korea and Somalia) lacking data entirely [T p.182, Figure 5.5].

Addressing what HDI still misses: IHDI & GII

HDI is “better for sure” than income alone, but still not perfect [L6 S15]. It notably doesn’t account for **gender inequality** or broader inequality in general — e.g. unpaid domestic labour, or mothers more often taking time off for childcare, aren’t captured [L6 S15]. This has led to related indices: the **Gender Development Index (GDI)** and **Gender Inequality Index (GII)**, which the slides show mapped and ranked (e.g. Switzerland/Denmark/Sweden rank best on GII; Haiti/Côte d’Ivoire/Niger rank worst) [L6 S15].

Beyond gender, still-harder-to-quantify factors are acknowledged as important but largely unmeasured by any current index: political freedom, freedom of expression/protest, environmental quality and safety, and racial/religious freedom [L6 S16]. The professor’s framing: “these are all really important things to incorporate, but in fact they’re quite difficult to quantitatively measure” — work in progress, not yet solved [L6 S16].

Closing thread into next week

Uneven distribution of development (by any measure — economic, social, or HDI) has real consequences: undernourishment/malnutrition, death, civil unrest, war, environmental catastrophe [L6 S17]. These consequences — with a primary focus on **hunger** — are the subject of lecture 7 next week, covering textbook §5.3–5.6 (pp.186–208), with heaviest emphasis on §5.4 (Feeding the

World) [L6 S17][T p.186, opening lines of §5.3/5.4].

Gaps & conflicts

- [L5/L6] **No timestamps available.** Both transcripts are plain speaker-labeled text with no time codes, so citations throughout use slide numbers (S<n>) and textbook pages rather than the [L<n> MM:SS] format COURSE.md illustrates.
- [L5/L6] **Textbook p.173 was not screenshotted** (skipped by student). Based on the surrounding pages (172 = chapter opener with intro paragraph + Learning Objectives 5.1–5.8; 174 = start of §5.1 text), p.173 most likely continues the opening full-page photo spread with no additional body text — but this is unconfirmed. Nothing in these notes was left unresolved because of it; flagging only for completeness.
- [L6] **Box 5.1’s slide framing is slightly misleading.** The slide bullet reads “recall core-periphery relationship (see Box 5.1),” but the textbook’s actual Box 5.1 is titled “Three Less Developed World Case Studies: Ethiopia, Sri Lanka, and Haiti” — a set of country profiles, not a direct explanation of core-periphery theory. Resolved in these notes by presenting the box as case-study evidence for uneven prosperity (consistent with how the transcript itself describes it), rather than as a restatement of World Systems Theory.
- [L5] **Unresolved critique of Dependency Theory**, raised informally by the professor and left as an open question: the theory doesn’t obviously explain why the US and Canada — also former British colonies — became wealthy. The professor speculates race may play a role but explicitly does not resolve this. Presented as an open question, not a settled answer.
- [L5] **Environmental determinism, possibilism, and Diamond’s “agricultural civilizations” argument** (textbook pp.183–184, opening of §5.2) are part of the assigned reading but were not mentioned in either lecture. Included in these notes under “Differentiating levels of development” for completeness, but marked ⚠ since it received no lecture emphasis and may or may not be quizzed.
- [L5] Learning Objectives 5.3–5.8 (listed on the Ch.5 opener, p.172) belong to lecture 7–8 material (hunger, refugees, natural hazards, industrialization-as-development-pathway, sustainable development) — out of scope for this week; noted so it isn’t mistaken for a missed topic this week.